

2.3 Processes & Patterns of Global Migration

Geography — Eduqas A-Level (A110QS) — Component 2: Global Governance

1. Defining Migration

Migration is, at its simplest, a *residential change that crosses an administrative boundary*. That boundary might be a municipal line (rural–urban migration within a single country), a provincial or state border (internal migration), or a sovereign border (international migration). The UN formally defines a long-term international migrant as a person who moves to a country other than that of their usual residence for a period of *at least one year*. Shorter movements (under three months, seasonal, tourism) are excluded. The one-year threshold is administrative rather than experiential: a person working abroad for 11 months is not a “migrant” in the data, yet their remittances and social ties are often indistinguishable from those of longer-stay workers. Exam answers should therefore handle the word *migrant* with care — it is a statistical category, not a moral one.

Migrant: A person who moves away from their place of usual residence, either across an international border (*international migrant*) or within a state (*internal migrant*), for a period of at least twelve months (UN DESA definition). The term is neutral on cause — economic, educational, familial, or forced.

Immigrant / Emigrant: Viewpoint-dependent labels for the same person. Someone leaving Syria for Germany is an *emigrant* from the Syrian perspective and an *immigrant* from the German perspective. National statistics therefore record inflows (immigration) and outflows (emigration) separately; the difference is *net migration*.

Refugee: Under Article 1A(2) of the *1951 Geneva Convention Relating to the Status of Refugees* (as modified by the 1967 Protocol), a refugee is a person who, “owing to well-founded fear of being

persecuted for reasons of race, religion, nationality, membership of a particular social group or political opinion, is outside the country of his nationality and is unable or, owing to such fear, is unwilling to avail himself of the protection of that country.” Refugees enjoy the principle of *non-refoulement* — they cannot be returned to a country where they would face persecution.

Asylum seeker: A person who has crossed an international border and formally applied for refugee status but whose claim has not yet been decided. Asylum seeker is thus a legal-administrative stage; if the claim succeeds, the person becomes a recognised refugee; if it fails, they may appeal or face removal.

Internally Displaced Person (IDP): Someone forced to flee their home by conflict, persecution or disaster but who has *not crossed an international border*. IDPs therefore fall outside the 1951 Convention and rely on their own government — often the cause of their displacement — for protection. UNHCR estimates 68+ million IDPs globally in 2024.

Stateless person: A person not considered as a national by any state under the operation of its law (1954 Convention). The Rohingya of Myanmar (stripped of citizenship by the 1982 Citizenship Law) are the best-known contemporary case; globally UNHCR identifies ~4.4 million stateless people, though the true figure is likely higher.

Economic / labour migrant: A person whose primary motivation for moving is to improve their material circumstances — higher wages, better employment conditions, remittance earnings. A *labour migrant* is typically a worker on a temporary employment visa (e.g. Filipino domestic workers in Hong Kong, Bangladeshi construction workers in Qatar); *economic migrant* is a broader term that may include self-settlers, entrepreneurs, and irregular workers.

A short historical context

Mass migration is not a 21st-century novelty. Three previous great waves shape the present. (1) *The Age of Mass Migration* (~1850–1914) carried 50–60 million Europeans to the Americas, Australasia and parts of Africa. Restrictive immigration laws (the 1917 US Literacy Act, the 1921 and 1924 US Quota Acts, the 1901 Australian Immigration Restriction Act) closed that era. (2) *Post-colonial migration* (1945–1970s) brought workers from the colonies and ex-colonies to European metropolises — Algerians to France, West Indians

and South Asians to Britain (the *Windrush* generation from 1948), Surinamese and Indonesians to the Netherlands. (3) *Guest-worker recruitment* (1955–73) drew Turks, Yugoslavs, Italians, Greeks and Moroccans to Germany, Austria, Switzerland and the Low Countries under temporary contracts that became de facto permanent. Contemporary flows build on these foundations: chain-migration, diaspora networks, bilingualism and legal frameworks laid down decades ago.

2. Scale of Global Migration (2024)

Global migration has grown steadily faster than world population. The International Organization for Migration (IOM) *World Migration Report 2024* puts the international migrant stock at **~281 million** — roughly 3.6% of the world’s population. That is up from 153 million (2.9%) in 1990 and 173 million (2.8%) in 2000. Although 3.6% sounds small, the 281 million figure is a *stock*: it excludes the far larger population who have migrated internally (an estimated ~740 million), who have migrated and returned, or who are the children of migrants. Forcibly displaced persons — refugees, asylum seekers, IDPs, others in need of protection — reached **117 million** in mid-2024 (UNHCR), the highest total ever recorded, driven by the wars in Ukraine, Sudan and Gaza and by protracted crises in Syria, Afghanistan, Venezuela and the Democratic Republic of Congo.

Indicator (2024)	Figure	Source
International migrants (stock)	~281 million (3.6% of world pop.)	IOM WMR 2024
Forcibly displaced globally	117 million (refugees, asylum seekers, IDPs, others)	UNHCR 2024
Refugees under UNHCR mandate	~43.4 million	UNHCR 2024
Internally Displaced Persons (IDPs)	~68.3 million	IDMC / UNHCR 2024
Asylum seekers	~6.9 million	UNHCR 2024
Stateless persons	~4.4 million (identified)	UNHCR 2024
Largest host country (foreign-born)	USA ~50 million	IOM 2024

Largest migrant corridor	Mexico → USA (~11 million)	World Bank 2023
Global remittances (2023)	\$860 billion (of which ~\$669bn to LMICs)	World Bank 2023

Where migrants live

The distribution of the global migrant stock is concentrated. Just 20 countries host two-thirds of all international migrants. The USA's ~50 million is the largest, but relative to population the most migrant-dense countries are the Gulf states (UAE ~88%, Qatar ~75%, Kuwait ~70%, Bahrain ~54%, Saudi Arabia ~38%) and traditional settler societies (Australia ~30%, Canada ~21%, Switzerland ~28%, Luxembourg ~47%). The UK sits at ~14%, Germany at ~18%, France at ~13%. Turkey has hosted the world's largest refugee population, peaking at over 3.5 million Syrians in the early 2020s.

Host country	Migrant stock (millions)	% of population
USA	~50.6	~15%
Germany	~15.8	~18%
Saudi Arabia	~13.5	~38%
Russia	~11.6	~8%
UK	~9.4	~14%
UAE	~8.7	~88%
France	~8.5	~13%
Canada	~8.0	~21%
Australia	~7.7	~30%
Spain	~6.8	~14%
Italy	~6.4	~11%
Turkey	~6.1	~7%

Exam tip — lead with a number: Eduqas examiners reward quantified openers. A short sentence such as “As of 2024 the IOM estimates ~281 million international migrants, or 3.6% of the world’s population, with ~117 million forcibly displaced” immediately signals a high-level answer. Memorise *one* headline figure per theme (stock, displacement, remittances, a flagship corridor) rather than pages of statistics.

3. Migration Theories and Models

Migration theory tries to answer two questions: *who moves, and why?* No single model captures every flow, but examiners expect candidates to evaluate competing frameworks rather than memorise one. The five classical models below sit on a spectrum from *individual decision-making* (Lee, Todaro) to *structural* explanations (dual labour market, network theory).

Ravenstein’s “Laws of Migration” (1885)

The Prussian–British geographer E. G. Ravenstein analysed 19th-century British census data and proposed eleven empirical generalisations, often compressed to five:

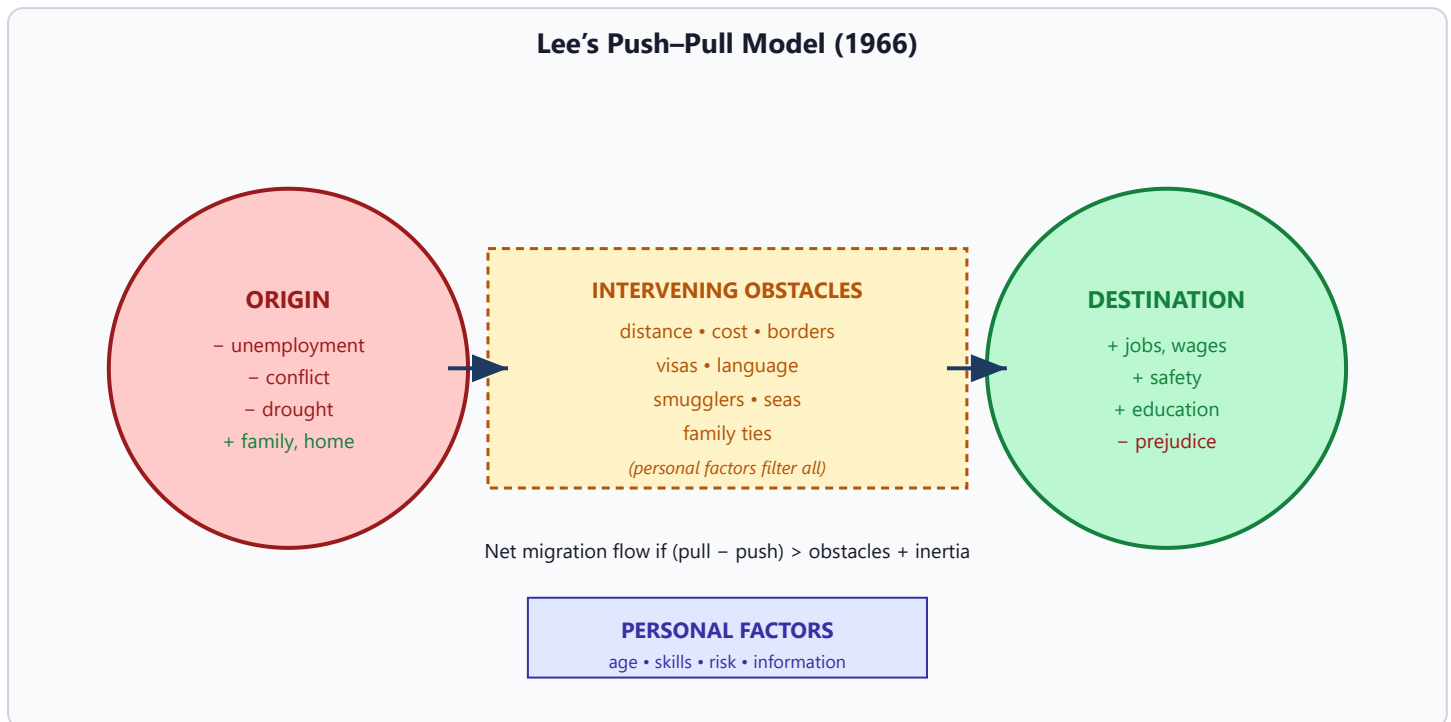
1. Most migrants move only **short distances**.
2. Migration proceeds **step by step** — village → town → city → capital.
3. Long-distance migrants head to **centres of commerce and industry**.
4. Each main current produces a **counter-current** (return migration).
5. Females migrate more over short distances; males dominate long-distance moves (this has since reversed: global migration is now slightly female-majority for short and medium distances).

Ravenstein’s laws remain remarkably durable for internal migration but handle modern long-distance labour migration and forced displacement less well.

Lee’s Push–Pull Model (1966)

Everett Lee’s *A Theory of Migration* is the dominant classroom model. Migration is the resultant of four forces: **push factors** at the origin, **pull factors** at the destination, a set of **intervening obstacles** (distance, cost, borders, language, visas, family ties), and **personal factors** (age, risk tolerance, skills, information). Lee stressed that the same factor can be push or pull depending on the migrant — a cold climate repels retirees but attracts ski instructors — and that migration decisions are made under *imperfect information*.

Push–pull model (Lee 1966): A migration decision-making framework in which migration results from the balance of negative factors at the origin (push), positive factors at the destination (pull), filtered through intervening obstacles and modulated by personal characteristics and information.



Todaro Model (1969)

Michael Todaro's model addresses rural–urban migration in developing countries. Migrants weigh the *expected* urban wage — urban wage × probability of finding work — against the rural wage. Because urban wages in cities such as Lagos or Mumbai can be several times rural agricultural wages, rational migrants will move even when urban unemployment is high. The paradox of mega-city slums coexisting with urban unemployment is therefore explained rather than contradicted by the model.

$$\text{Expected urban income} = W_u \times p(\text{employment}) \text{ vs } W_r$$

Network Theory / Chain Migration

Migration networks are social capital: each earlier migrant lowers the cost and risk for the next. Chain migration explains why migrant flows concentrate in particular destination neighbourhoods (Bangladeshi Tower Hamlets, Mexican Los Angeles, Somali Minneapolis) rather than spreading evenly across a host

country. It also generates *cumulative causation* — once established, a flow self-perpetuates even after the original push factor has weakened.

Chain migration: A sequential process whereby established migrants sponsor, inform and host subsequent migrants from the same origin community, producing concentrated diaspora settlement clusters and self-reinforcing flows largely independent of current push factors.

Dual Labour Market Theory

Michael Piore argued that advanced economies have a *segmented* labour market: a primary sector of stable, well-paid jobs, and a secondary sector of unstable, low-paid, physically demanding “3D” jobs (dirty, dangerous, demeaning). Native workers avoid the secondary sector, generating a *structural demand* for migrant labour regardless of the unemployment rate. This explains why Gulf states recruit South-Asian construction workers, why the UK imports NHS staff, and why US agriculture depends on seasonal Mexican labour even during recession.

Neoclassical vs New Economics of Labour Migration

A theoretical debate with direct exam relevance. *Neoclassical* models (of which Todaro is a variant) treat migration as an individual utility-maximising response to wage differentials: workers move until marginal returns equalise. The *New Economics of Labour Migration* (Stark and Bloom, 1985) argues instead that migration decisions are taken *by households*, not individuals, and that families diversify risk by sending one member abroad as a form of *informal insurance* against local shocks. This frame explains why households in relatively low-risk, low-wage settings (north-eastern Bangladesh, rural Kerala) choose to export labour even when the individual wage-gain is modest: the gain lies in income diversification. It also explains why remittances stay high even when the migrant has settled permanently — obligation runs through kinship, not individual self-interest.

4. Push Factors

Push factors drive people *away* from an origin. They are best classified under five headings:

- **Economic:** unemployment, underemployment, low wages, poverty, lack of credit, agricultural mechanisation displacing peasant labour, collapse of traditional industries.
- **Social:** persecution on grounds of race/religion/sexuality/caste, gender-based violence, lack of access to education and healthcare, inter-generational poverty traps.

- **Political:** civil war, state repression, arbitrary arrest, military conscription, ethnic cleansing, failed-state collapse of security.
- **Environmental:** drought, desertification, flooding, sea-level rise, tropical cyclones, earthquakes, volcanic eruption, long-run climate-change stressors.
- **Demographic:** “youth bulges” in which rapid population growth produces large cohorts of young people entering saturated labour markets (Sahel, MENA, parts of South Asia).

5. Pull Factors

Pull factors draw migrants *towards* a destination. The mirror-image classification applies:

- **Economic:** higher wages, accessible jobs, better working conditions, entrepreneurial opportunity, access to credit.
- **Social:** family reunification, presence of an established diaspora, high-quality education and healthcare, cultural attraction.
- **Political:** democratic freedoms, rule of law, stability, asylum protection under international law.
- **Environmental:** benign climate, lower exposure to natural hazards, safer urban infrastructure.
- **Network-related:** diaspora contacts providing jobs, housing, remittance channels, information about routes.

Dimension	Push (origin)	Pull (destination)
Economic	Unemployment, low wages, poverty, indebtedness	Jobs, higher wages, better conditions, entrepreneurship
Social	Persecution, lack of education, discrimination	Family reunification, education, diaspora
Political	Conflict, repression, conscription	Stability, rule of law, asylum rights
Environmental	Drought, floods, sea-level rise, disaster	Safe climate, resilient infrastructure
Demographic	Youth bulge, saturated labour market	Ageing population, labour shortages

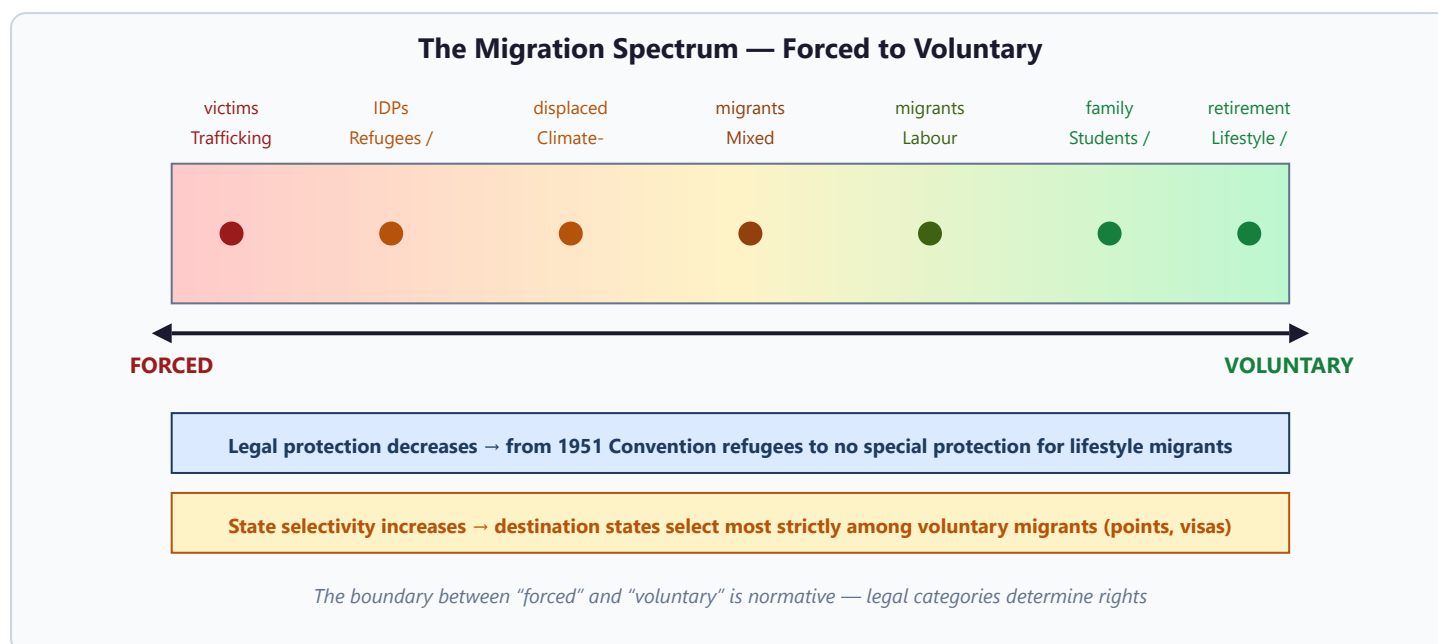
Exam tip — avoid single-factor explanations: Real migration decisions combine several factors. In a 12-mark question, show push and pull working together (“Syrian civil war pushed refugees out while Germany’s 2015 *Wir schaffen das* policy and labour shortages pulled them in”) rather than listing factors in isolation.

6. Types of Migration Flows

Migration flows can be classified along several axes simultaneously. A Syrian refugee in Germany is *forced*, *international*, *initially irregular*, *potentially permanent*; a Filipino nurse in the UAE is *voluntary*, *international*, *legal*, *typically temporary*. The axes are independent.

Axis	Categories	Example
Compulsion	Forced — voluntary	Rohingya vs Polish plumber in London
Distance	Internal — international	Chinese rural–urban vs Mexico–USA
Legality	Regular / documented — irregular / undocumented	Tier 2 UK visa vs Channel small-boat crossing
Duration	Permanent — temporary — circular/seasonal	Australian permanent residency vs Gulf 2-year contract
Skill	High-skilled — low-skilled	Indian IT workers in Silicon Valley vs Bangladeshi construction in Qatar
Demographic	Family — labour — student — retirement	UK spouse visa vs NHS worker vs overseas student vs Spanish Costa

Forced vs voluntary migration: A spectrum, not a binary. Forced migration (refugees, IDPs, trafficked persons, those fleeing environmental disaster) is driven primarily by an immediate threat to life or liberty. Voluntary migration (labour, student, lifestyle) is driven primarily by the expectation of improvement. Most real flows combine elements: an Afghan fleeing Taliban rule also expects better economic prospects in Germany.



Circular and Seasonal Migration

Circular migration involves repeated movement between origin and destination, often seasonally. Gulf labour migration is a classic example: two-year contracts are renewed multiple times, with workers returning home briefly between contracts. In Europe, eastern European agricultural workers (pre-Brexit in the UK, still in Germany, the Netherlands and Italy) harvest crops seasonally and return home. Circular migration maintains strong origin ties, maximises remittances, and avoids the integration challenges of permanent settlement — but often comes with precarious labour rights.

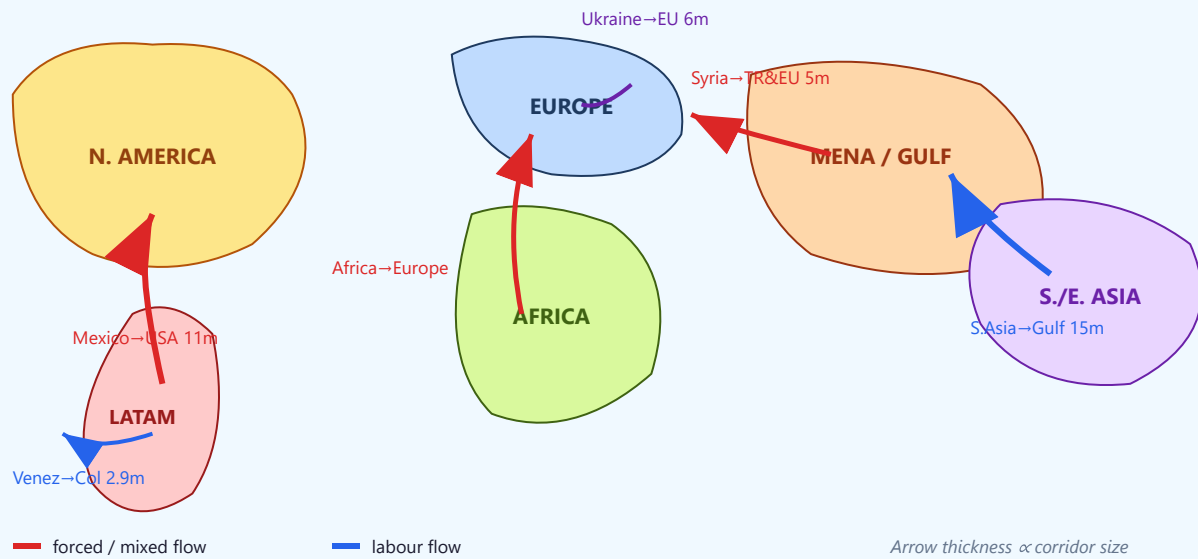
7. Major Global Migration Corridors

A *corridor* is the bilateral stock of migrants between an origin country and a destination country. The World Bank publishes a global corridor matrix; the ten largest are overwhelmingly from the Global South to richer neighbours or former colonial metropolises. Corridors are sticky: once established, they persist for decades through chain migration even as push factors shift.

Corridor	Approx. stock (2024)	Primary drivers
Mexico → USA	~11.0 million	Wage gap, family reunification, irregular border flows

Syria → Turkey	~3.2 million	Civil war (2011–), refugee protection
India → UAE	~3.4 million	Kafala labour migration, construction/services
India → Saudi Arabia	~2.5 million	Labour migration, remittances
Bangladesh → India	~3.1 million	Post-Partition flows, economic and environmental
Ukraine → Russia	~3.2 million (pre-2022)	Historical, linguistic, economic; reversed by 2022 war
Venezuela → Colombia	~2.9 million	Economic collapse and humanitarian crisis since 2015
Afghanistan → Iran / Pakistan	~3.5 million combined	Decades of conflict; Taliban return 2021
Poland → Germany / UK (pre-Brexit)	~1 million each	EU free movement 2004–
Philippines → USA / Gulf	~2.0m / ~2.5m	Nurses, domestic workers, state-sponsored overseas employment

Major Global Migration Corridors (simplified)



Exam tip — always name the corridor: Vague references to “migration to Europe” earn few marks. Specify the corridor (Syria–Turkey, Ukraine–Poland, Morocco–Spain), give a number and date, and locate it in the classification (forced / labour / irregular).

8. Impacts on Origin Countries

The impacts of emigration on source countries are mixed. Economic gains through remittances and diaspora engagement can be enormous, but they are offset by human-capital losses and demographic distortions.

Channels of origin-country impact

The influence of emigration on source countries flows through four principal channels, which examiners reward candidates for distinguishing:

1. **Financial remittances** — the direct transfer of earnings.
2. **Human-capital effects** — both drain (skilled emigration) and gain (return migration, knowledge transfer, incentive effects that raise education enrolment in origin).
3. **Demographic effects** — changes in age structure, sex ratio, dependency, fertility.

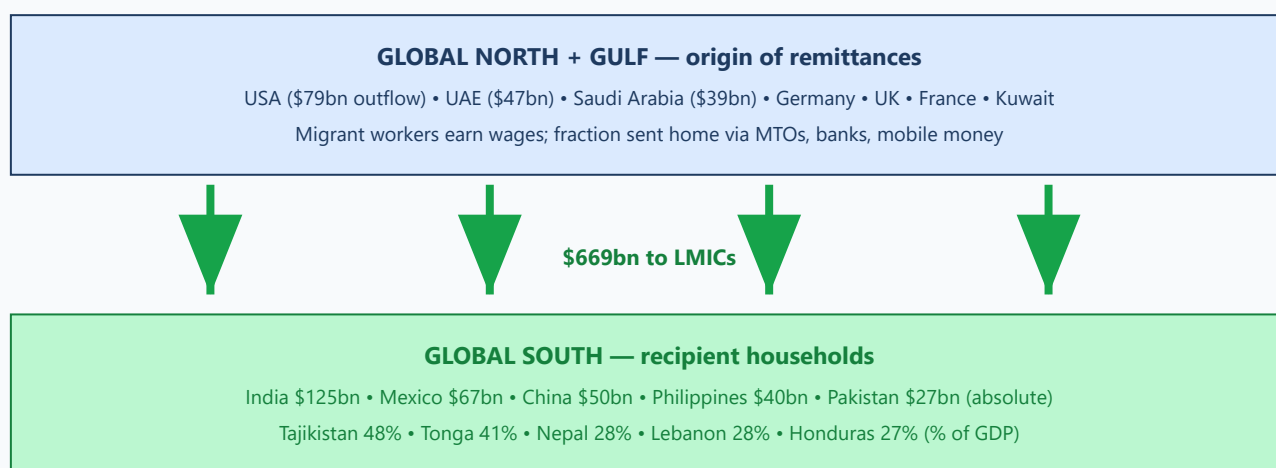
4. **Social and political effects** — diaspora politics, cultural diffusion, norm-change (the “social remittances” coined by Peggy Levitt).

Remittances

The World Bank estimates **\$860 billion in global remittances in 2023**, of which **~\$669 billion flowed to low- and middle-income countries** — more than three times official development assistance and larger than FDI in many recipients. India (\$125bn), Mexico (\$67bn), China (\$50bn), the Philippines (\$40bn) and Pakistan (\$27bn) are the largest recipients in absolute terms. But the share-of-GDP ranking is very different: **Tajikistan (~48%), Tonga (~41%), Nepal (~28%), Samoa (~27%), Kyrgyzstan (~24%), Honduras (~27%), Lebanon (~28%)** depend on remittances for a quarter or more of national income.

Remittance: A cross-border transfer of money by a migrant to household members in the origin country, usually made through formal channels (banks, money-transfer operators such as Western Union, mobile money) but sometimes informal (hawala). Remittances are counter-cyclical with respect to origin-country shocks and have generally proved resilient to global recessions.

Global Remittance Flows 2023 — \$860bn total



Remittances exceed ODA × 3 and rival FDI; counter-cyclical in recipients

Remittances are distinctive in four ways. First, they are large — three times global ODA and rivalling FDI in many LMICs. Second, they are *counter-cyclical* in the recipient country: migrants send *more* when their family at home is suffering, which smooths consumption through droughts, floods and crises. Third, they are *stable*: through the 2008 financial crisis remittance flows to developing countries fell only ~5%, against FDI falls of ~35%. Fourth, they are *mostly spent on consumption* (food, housing, school fees, healthcare)

rather than productive investment — improving household welfare without necessarily transforming origin economies. The cost of sending remittances remains high: the global average was 6.2% in 2023 against a UN Sustainable Development Goal target of 3%, with sub-Saharan Africa routes (Europe → West Africa) the most expensive at ~8%.

Brain Drain

Brain drain refers to the emigration of highly skilled workers — doctors, nurses, engineers, academics — from the Global South to the Global North. The Philippines trains more nurses than it employs and exports them globally; Ghana loses roughly half its medical graduates within five years; ~30% of African-born doctors work in OECD countries. For the origin country the cost is triple: the public investment in training is lost, critical services are understaffed, and social mobility for those left behind narrows.

Brain drain: The net emigration of highly skilled and educated workers from one country to another, producing a human-capital deficit in the origin country. The mirror process is *brain gain* in the destination and, in some cases, *brain circulation* when returnees transfer skills and capital back.

Other origin impacts

- **Demographic hollowing:** in many rural areas the working-age population has emigrated, leaving an unbalanced population of elderly and children — e.g. Moldova, rural Philippines, parts of the Sahel.
- **Diaspora engagement:** political lobbying (Jewish, Armenian, Irish-American diasporas), philanthropy, entrepreneurship (Taiwanese return migrants who founded TSMC and Silicon Valley links), tourism.
- **Social remittances:** cultural norms, gender expectations, democratic values transmitted back through returnees and communication.
- **Brain gain / circulation:** where the conditions exist, return migrants bring capital, skills and networks (India's IT boom, China's "sea turtles").

Diaspora: A population dispersed across multiple countries while maintaining connections — real or imagined — with an origin homeland. Diasporas range from mature (Irish, Jewish, Indian) to recent (Syrian, Venezuelan, Ukrainian) and are increasingly recognised as economic and political actors by both origin and host states.

9. Impacts on Destination Countries

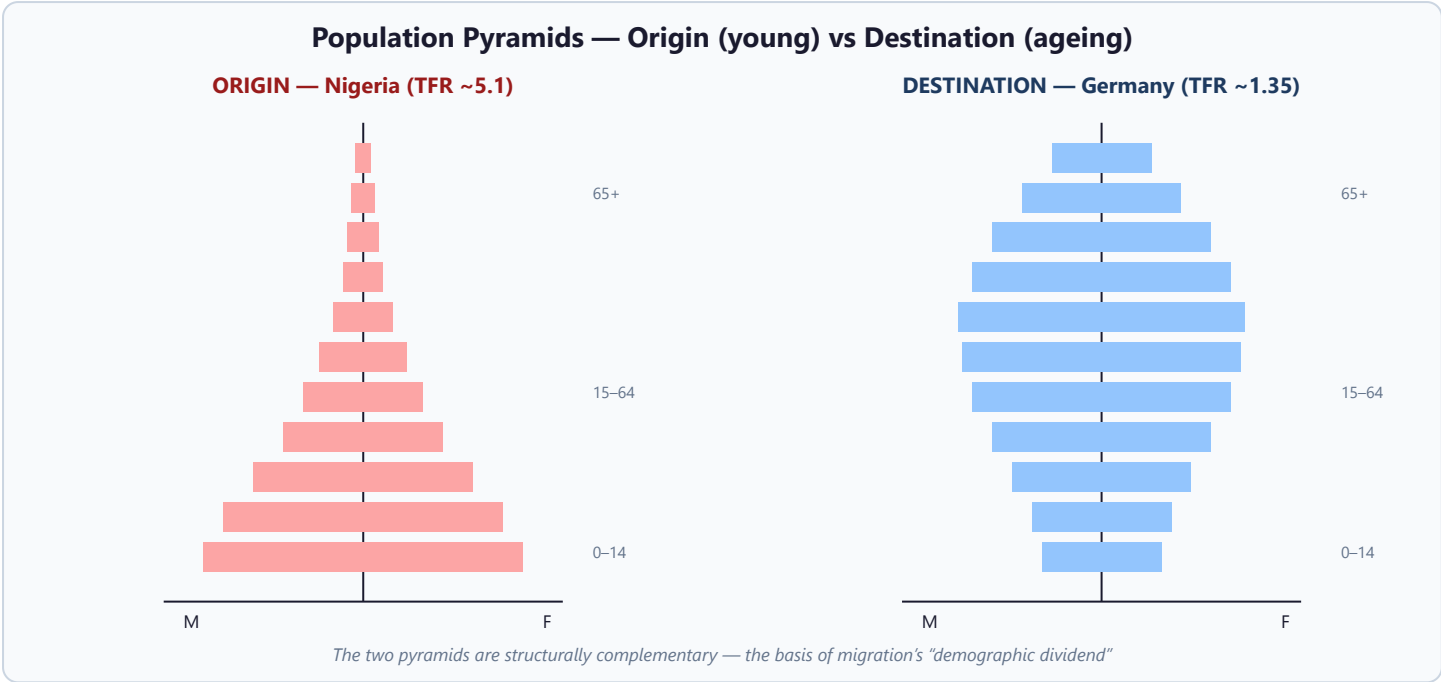
Destination-country impacts are equally mixed and politically charged. The empirical evidence points consistently to a net economic benefit and a net demographic benefit, but distributional effects and perceived cultural pressure drive political backlash.

Economic

- **Labour-market gap filling:** UK NHS depends on ~17% foreign-born staff (28% of doctors, 22% of nurses, 2024 NHS workforce data). US agriculture employs ~50% foreign-born, much of it undocumented Mexican and Central American labour. German Mittelstand engineering firms rely on Polish, Turkish and now Ukrainian workers.
- **Entrepreneurship:** migrants in the USA found new businesses at roughly twice the rate of native-born citizens; over half of US "unicorn" start-ups have at least one immigrant founder (NFAP 2022).
- **Fiscal contribution:** OECD studies consistently find migrants from most origin countries are net fiscal contributors over their working life; the effect is strongest for high-skilled labour migrants and weakest for aged family-reunification migrants.
- **Pressure on housing and services:** localised concentration can stress housing supply, school places and primary care, particularly where immigration is rapid and planning systems are slow (UK southern cities; German small towns in 2015–16).

Demographic

Every high-income country except Israel has a total fertility rate below replacement (2.1). Germany's is ~1.35, Italy's ~1.2, Japan's ~1.2, South Korea's ~0.72–0.75 (2023–24). Without immigration these populations shrink and age rapidly, with ruinous implications for pensions, healthcare and labour supply. Germany's working-age population would have fallen by ~7 million between 2000 and 2020 without net immigration; instead it was approximately stable. Migration has become the default remedy for advanced-economy demographic decline.



Social and Political

Cultural diversity is a benefit for some and a threat for others; the political salience of migration has risen sharply across the Global North. Anti-immigration and “nativist” movements reshaped politics during the 2010s and 2020s: Donald Trump’s 2016 and 2024 campaigns on the US–Mexico border wall, the UK Leave campaign’s “take back control” 2016 Brexit vote, Viktor Orbán’s border fences in Hungary, the Alternative für Deutschland’s ascent (second place nationally, with ~21%, in the February 2025 federal election), Giorgia Meloni’s Fratelli d’Italia winning the 2022 Italian election on an anti-migration platform, Geert Wilders’ PVV topping the 2023 Dutch election, and Marine Le Pen’s Rassemblement National coming within reach of the French presidency. The political impact on migration policy has been rapid: restriction, externalisation (pushing the border outward, as with the EU–Turkey deal or the UK–Rwanda scheme), and tightened asylum rules.

Dimension	Origin country impact	Destination country impact
Economic	Remittances (+); brain drain (–); lost tax base (–)	Labour supply (+); entrepreneurship (+); housing pressure (–)
Demographic	Working-age depletion, ageing (–); lower fertility pressure (+/–)	Counteracts ageing (+); diversifies population

Social	Left-behind children/elderly (–); social remittances (+)	Cultural diversity (+/–); integration challenges (–)
Political	Diaspora lobbying (+/–); regime-critical voices abroad	Electoral backlash, nativism; tightened policy

Exam tip — balance origin and destination: A frequent mistake in essays is to discuss only destination impacts. High-mark answers give a parallel treatment of origin effects (remittances, brain drain, demographic hollowing) and reach an explicit judgement (e.g. “overall positive for origin if remittances are invested productively; negative if they simply inflate consumption and encourage further emigration”).

10. Governance of Migration

Migration governance is *fragmented*. There is no single global migration regime equivalent to the WTO for trade or the IMF for finance. Instead there is a patchwork of legal instruments, institutions and regional agreements.

How an asylum claim actually works

Understanding the procedural machinery matters for evaluative questions on governance effectiveness. A typical EU or UK asylum process runs as follows:

1. **Arrival and claim lodgement:** the claimant must be physically on state territory (or at a land/air port) to lodge a claim — the *territorial* principle that externalisation is designed to circumvent.
2. **Screening:** identity, fingerprinting (EURODAC in the EU), initial admissibility check.
3. **Substantive interview:** the claimant must demonstrate a well-founded fear of persecution on a Convention ground. Credibility assessment is the heart of the process and is notoriously error-prone.
4. **Decision:** grant of refugee status, grant of subsidiary / humanitarian protection, or refusal.
5. **Appeal:** most jurisdictions allow judicial appeal. UK appeals allow ~30–40% of refusals, suggesting substantial first-instance error.
6. **Outcome:** successful claimants receive leave to remain (typically five years with a path to settlement); refused claimants either leave voluntarily, are deported, or — commonly — remain as irregular migrants.

Grant rates vary sharply by nationality and country. Syrians typically receive protection at 85–95% across the EU; Afghan first-instance rates were 60% in 2023; Iraqi rates ~40%; Albanian and Georgian rates under 5%. The variation reflects both underlying country conditions and host-state political pressure on case-workers.

Global instruments

- **1951 Geneva Convention Relating to the Status of Refugees** (and 1967 Protocol removing the original European geographic scope) — binding treaty defining refugee status and the principle of *non-refoulement*. 149 states are party; notably absent are most Gulf states, parts of South Asia, Malaysia and Thailand.
- **UN Global Compact for Safe, Orderly and Regular Migration (GCM, 2018)** — a non-binding political framework with 23 objectives agreed in Marrakech. The USA withdrew before adoption under the first Trump administration; Australia, Hungary and Israel also refused. The GCM's weakness is its non-binding nature; its strength is that it exists at all.
- **UN Global Compact on Refugees (GCR, 2018)** — sister instrument building on the 1951 Convention, aiming to share responsibility for refugees more equitably.
- **1990 International Convention on the Protection of the Rights of All Migrant Workers and Members of Their Families** — binding but ratified by no major destination country.

Institutions

- **UNHCR** (UN High Commissioner for Refugees, founded 1950) — mandated to protect refugees, stateless persons and many IDPs; runs refugee camps, resettlement schemes and legal protection work.
- **IOM** (International Organization for Migration, 1951, UN-related since 2016) — operational support on migration management, return, reintegration and data.
- **UNRWA** — separate agency for Palestinian refugees, controversial and chronically underfunded.
- **ILO** — protection of migrant workers' labour rights.

UNHCR: The United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees, created by the UN General Assembly in 1950. UNHCR is the guardian of the 1951 Refugee Convention and provides protection, camps, legal support and resettlement for refugees and (via extension) some IDPs and stateless persons. Its 2024 budget is ~\$10.6 billion, though only about two-thirds is funded.

Regional governance — the European example

- **Schengen Area** — 29 European states (2024) with abolished internal borders; common external border.
- **Dublin Regulation** — determines which EU state processes an asylum claim (generally the first country of entry); politically contentious because it concentrates pressure on Mediterranean frontline states (Italy, Greece).
- **Common European Asylum System (CEAS)** and the **2024 New Pact on Migration and Asylum** (due to apply from June 2026) — attempting to balance solidarity with relocation and returns.
- **Frontex** (European Border and Coast Guard Agency) — the EU's fastest-growing agency, accused of complicity in pushbacks.
- **EU Temporary Protection Directive** (2001) — activated for the first time in March 2022 to grant Ukrainians immediate protected status.

Bilateral and externalised arrangements

- **EU–Turkey deal (2016)**: EU funds and visa commitments in exchange for Turkey hosting Syrian refugees and preventing onward movement.
- **UK–Rwanda scheme**: 2022 agreement to send asylum seekers arriving irregularly in the UK to Rwanda for processing and settlement. Ruled unlawful by the UK Supreme Court in November 2023; revived by the Safety of Rwanda Act 2024; scheme scrapped in July 2024 by the incoming Labour government before the first flight departed.
- **Australia offshore processing**: asylum seekers intercepted at sea sent to Nauru and Papua New Guinea's Manus Island; template for European externalisation debates.
- **US–Mexico Migrant Protection Protocols (“Remain in Mexico”)**: Trump-era policy requiring asylum seekers to await decisions in Mexico; reinstated by the second Trump administration in January 2025.

11. Case Studies

Case study 1 — The Syrian Refugee Crisis (2011–present). The uprising against Bashar al-Assad in March 2011 escalated into a multi-sided civil war drawing in ISIS, Russia, Iran, Turkey, Hezbollah, the Kurds and a US-led coalition. By 2024 the UN recorded *~6.8 million Syrian refugees* and *~6.7 million IDPs*, against a pre-war population of *~22 million* — the largest refugee crisis since the Second World War. Turkey hosted *~3.2 million* Syrians (the world's largest single refugee population), Lebanon

~780,000 (about 1 in 5 residents), Jordan ~660,000 (in camps such as Za'atari and Azraq). Some ~1.3 million reached the EU, concentrated in Germany (~820,000) and Sweden (~185,000). 2015 was the pivotal year: drownings in the Aegean, images of three-year-old Alan Kurdi, Angela Merkel's decision not to close the German border, and the subsequent political backlash that drove Brexit and European rightward shifts. The *EU–Turkey deal* (March 2016) offered €6 billion and visa-liberalisation commitments to Turkey in exchange for returning irregular arrivals from the Greek islands; irregular arrivals fell ~97% within a year but Turkey has since used the deal as political leverage. Impacts in destinations: labour-market integration in Germany has been strong (>60% employment rate by 2022), social tensions have risen, the AfD has advanced. Impacts in origin: infrastructure destroyed (~\$400bn WB estimate), institutions hollowed, after Assad's fall in December 2024, returns accelerated sharply — UNHCR estimates ~1.3 million refugees went home during 2025, cutting the number of Syrian refugees worldwide to about 4.9 million — though destroyed homes and political uncertainty still hold many back.

Case study 2 — Mexico–USA Migration Corridor. The world's largest bilateral migration corridor, with ~11 million Mexican-born people in the USA (peaked at ~12.8m in 2007; declined modestly since). The corridor has deep structural roots: the 1848 Treaty of Guadalupe Hidalgo transferred ~half of Mexico to the USA; the 1942–64 Bracero Program imported 4.6 million Mexican agricultural workers legally; the 1986 Immigration Reform and Control Act regularised ~3 million irregular migrants. The 1994 NAFTA agreement expected to reduce migration by boosting Mexican jobs; instead it displaced millions of peasant maize farmers unable to compete with subsidised US corn, increasing northward pressure. US border enforcement has tightened continuously: Operation Gatekeeper (1994), the Secure Fence Act (2006), Trump's 2017–21 border wall expansion (~720 km of new or replaced fencing), Biden's 2021 construction pause and 2024 executive order restricting asylum when crossings exceed 2,500 per day. Since 2021 the corridor has diversified: Mexicans are now a minority of Border Patrol encounters, outnumbered by Guatemalans, Hondurans, Venezuelans, Cubans, Haitians and Chinese. 2023 saw ~2.5 million irregular crossings — a historic high. Remittances from the USA to Mexico reached \$63bn in 2023, ~4% of Mexican GDP. Since January 2025 the second Trump administration has closed the border to most asylum claims, ended the CBP One appointment app and expanded detention and deportation; south-west border apprehensions fell to their lowest levels in decades during 2025.

Case study 3 — Gulf Labour Migration and the Kafala System. The six Gulf Cooperation Council states (Saudi Arabia, UAE, Qatar, Kuwait, Bahrain, Oman) host over 30 million migrant workers — a

majority of the resident population in the smaller states (~88% in the UAE, ~70% in Kuwait, ~75% in Qatar). Labourers come overwhelmingly from South Asia (India, Pakistan, Bangladesh, Nepal, Sri Lanka) and the Philippines, working in construction, domestic service and oil. Recruitment and residence are tied to the *Kafala* ("sponsorship") system in which a specific employer holds the worker's visa — workers cannot change jobs or leave the country without employer permission, a structure that has enabled widespread wage theft, passport confiscation and labour abuse. Qatar's 2022 FIFA World Cup preparations drew global attention: a Guardian investigation estimated 6,500 South Asian worker deaths in Qatar during 2010–20, though establishing causation proved disputed. Reforms since 2017 — Qatar abolished its exit-permit system in 2018 and introduced a minimum wage in 2020; the UAE has reformed contracts — have improved the legal framework, though enforcement remains weak. Remittance outflows from the Gulf exceed \$120bn annually, underpinning GDP in Nepal, Bangladesh, Pakistan, Sri Lanka, the Philippines and Kerala (where ~20% of the working-age population has migrated).

Case study 4 — Ukraine Refugee Crisis (2022–present). The Russian full-scale invasion of Ukraine on 24 February 2022 produced the fastest mass displacement in Europe since the Second World War. Within six weeks 4 million people had left Ukraine; by mid-2024 ~6.7 million Ukrainian refugees were recorded globally, of whom ~5.9 million in Europe and ~1.2 million in Russia. Poland hosted ~1 million, Germany ~1.15 million, the Czech Republic ~380,000. An additional ~3.7 million were IDPs within Ukraine. The EU activated the **Temporary Protection Directive** for the first time in its history on 4 March 2022, granting Ukrainians immediate right to residence, work, housing, healthcare and education without asylum processing; it has since been extended to March 2027. Public response was extraordinarily supportive — unprecedented in modern European migration history — and raised uncomfortable questions about the differentiated reception of Syrians and Ukrainians. Key features: *a gendered flow*, as men aged 18–60 were conscripted under martial law, so the refugee population is ~90% women and children; high return rates (~1.5 million have returned despite the ongoing war); strong labour-market participation, especially in Poland and Germany; no visible political backlash comparable to 2015 because refugees were perceived as culturally proximate and fleeing a geopolitically aligned aggressor.

Case study 5 — The Rohingya Crisis. The Rohingya are a Muslim ethnic group from Rakhine State in western Myanmar, stripped of citizenship by the 1982 Burmese Citizenship Law and rendered one of the world's largest stateless populations. After decades of discrimination, a Myanmar military "clearance operation" in August 2017 following attacks on police posts drove ~750,000 Rohingya

across the border into Bangladesh in under three months. UN fact-finding investigators characterised the operation as genocide, citing mass killings, systematic sexual violence, and village burnings. The Gambia filed a case against Myanmar under the Genocide Convention at the International Court of Justice in 2019 (ongoing). The bulk of refugees are concentrated at **Cox's Bazar in south-eastern Bangladesh — the largest refugee settlement in the world with ~1 million people** in camps such as Kutupalong. Conditions are dire: monsoon flooding, cyclone exposure, movement restrictions, and no legal right to work. Bangladesh has controversially relocated ~30,000 to the low-lying Bhasan Char island. Durable solutions remain elusive: return to Myanmar is impossible while the junta (in power since the February 2021 coup) persists, resettlement to third countries is minimal, and local integration is politically blocked. The Rohingya illustrate how *statelessness* intersects with *forced migration* to produce the most protracted humanitarian failures.

Additional mini case studies

Mini case — The Venezuelan exodus. Since 2014 ~7.7 million Venezuelans have left their country, driven by economic collapse (hyperinflation peaking at 1.7 million % in 2018), shortages of food, medicine and fuel, the authoritarian turn under Nicolás Maduro, and US sanctions. Colombia hosts ~2.9m, Peru ~1.5m, Ecuador, Chile and Brazil hundreds of thousands each, the USA ~770,000 (many having crossed the Darien Gap and then the Mexican border 2022–24). Colombia's *Estatuto Temporal de Protección para Migrantes Venezolanos* (2021) granted ten-year regularisation to Venezuelans registered before January 2021 — arguably the most generous Latin American response in recent memory. The Quito Process coordinates a regional response but funding has lagged compared with Ukraine or Syria, which Venezuelan-crisis advocates highlight as illustrating a racialised hierarchy of global sympathy.

Mini case — Afghan displacement. Afghanistan has produced refugees continuously since the 1979 Soviet invasion. The Taliban takeover in August 2021 triggered a fresh exodus: by 2024 ~6.4 million Afghans were displaced, ~5.6m as refugees (most in Iran and Pakistan, with ~90,000 relocated to the USA under Operation Allies Welcome and ~25,000 to the UK under ACRS/ARAP). Pakistan's November 2023 decision to deport undocumented Afghans sent ~500,000 people back (and mass expulsions from Iran and Pakistan in 2025 returned well over a million more) into a country whose economy had collapsed and whose women faced rights restrictions amounting, in some analyses, to "gender apartheid". The Afghan case demonstrates both protracted displacement (some families

have been refugees for three generations) and the vulnerability of protection regimes to host-country political shifts.

Mini case — Mediterranean crossings. The Central Mediterranean route (Libya / Tunisia to Italy) and Western Mediterranean route (Morocco to Spain) are the busiest sea routes into Europe: ~157,000 irregular arrivals reached Italy alone in 2023. Deaths at sea exceeded 3,100 that year — the Mediterranean is the deadliest migrant frontier in the world. Italy's 2017 Memorandum of Understanding with Libya, funded by the EU, delegates interception to a Libyan Coast Guard whose facilities have been repeatedly documented as sites of torture, forced labour and rape. In 2023 the EU (with Italy's backing) signed a Memorandum with Tunisia (€255m) and in November 2023 Italy signed a protocol with Albania, under which two Italian-run centres opened in Albania in October 2024 to process male asylum seekers — a template closely watched across Europe, though Italian court rulings largely stalled them.

12. Climate Migration

Climate change is an emerging — and contested — driver of migration. Three mechanisms are at work: *slow-onset* stressors (drought, sea-level rise, glacier loss), *rapid-onset* disasters (tropical cyclones, floods, wildfires), and climate-amplified conflict over water, pasture and crops. The Internal Displacement Monitoring Centre records tens of millions of new disaster displacements each year (~26 million in 2023; a record ~46 million in 2024), far exceeding conflict-induced displacement in most years, though they are disproportionately *internal* and *short-term*.

- **Pacific atoll nations:** Tuvalu, Kiribati, the Marshall Islands face existential loss from sea-level rise on reef islands with average elevations of 2–3 m. Tuvalu signed the *Falepili Union* treaty with Australia (2023), guaranteeing up to 280 Tuvaluans per year pathways to Australian residence — the world's first climate-migration treaty.
- **Bangladesh:** sea-level rise and cyclone intensification are displacing coastal populations to Dhaka; an estimated 13–18 million people could be displaced internally by 2050 (Stern Review; World Bank *Groundswell Report*).
- **Sahel:** drought and desertification have combined with conflict to displace several million across Mali, Burkina Faso, Niger and Chad.

- **IPCC AR6** projects hundreds of millions could face climate-induced relocation pressure by 2050 in worst-case scenarios.

A crucial legal gap: the 1951 Convention does *not* cover climate-displaced persons, who therefore lack international protection. UNHCR, the Nansen Initiative (2012–15) and the Platform on Disaster Displacement have tried to fill the gap with soft-law guidance. The 2020 Teitiota case at the UN Human Rights Committee accepted in principle that returning someone to a country where climate threatens their life could violate the ICCPR — a potential legal wedge, but still narrow.

Exam tip — don't say "climate refugee" uncritically: The term has rhetorical force but no legal standing under the 1951 Convention. A high-mark answer uses "climate-displaced person" or "climate-induced migrant", notes the legal gap, and cites the Teitiota case or the Falepili Union as evidence of an evolving but still inadequate regime.

The 1951 Convention in practice

The legal definition of a refugee under Article 1A(2) is narrow. It requires a well-founded fear of persecution on *five specific grounds* — race, religion, nationality, membership of a particular social group, or political opinion — and it requires the person to be *outside* their country of nationality. The definition excludes:

- People fleeing generalised violence (though UNHCR interprets the Convention to cover them in many cases, and regional instruments such as the 1969 OAU Convention and the 1984 Cartagena Declaration explicitly extend refugee status to those fleeing war).
- People fleeing environmental disaster or climate change (the legal gap discussed above).
- People fleeing poverty, however severe.
- Internally Displaced Persons who have not crossed a border (covered instead by the 1998 UN Guiding Principles on Internal Displacement — non-binding soft law).

The Convention also establishes the key rights of refugees: non-refoulement (Art. 33), freedom of religion (Art. 4), access to courts (Art. 16), work rights (Art. 17), housing (Art. 21), education (Art. 22), social security (Art. 24), and travel documents (Art. 28). In practice, host-state implementation varies enormously.

13. Evaluating Migration Policy

Destination states' migration policies can be positioned on three dimensions: how *restrictive* vs permissive; how *integrationist* (encouraging full participation), *multiculturalist* (pluralism) or *assimilationist* (conformity to majority culture) in approach; and how *selective* vs universal.

Policy approach	Key features	Examples
Points-based / selective	Visas allocated on skills, wages, age, language	Canada (pioneer, 1967); Australia (1979); UK post-Brexit (2021)
Family reunification	Visas for spouses, children, parents of residents	US (green card), most EU states
Refugee resettlement	Quotas filled from UNHCR referrals	USA (Trump cut to 15,000; Biden raised to 125,000; suspended in 2025 with a cap of 7,500 for 2026); Canada; Sweden
Guest-worker / temporary	Fixed-term visas tied to employer	Gulf Kafala; German Gastarbeiter (1955–73); H-2A/H-2B in US
Externalisation	Processing / containment outside state territory	Australia offshore; EU–Turkey; UK–Rwanda
Amnesty / regularisation	Legal status to long-resident irregular migrants	Spain (2005, 550,000); USA (1986, 3m); Italy (2020 ~200,000)
Deportation / enforcement	Removal of irregular migrants; worksite raids; border walls	Trump 1&2; Meloni; Hungary under Orbán

Trade-offs are persistent:

- **Economic efficiency vs political legitimacy:** economists generally favour liberal migration; voters often do not.
- **Humanitarian obligation vs electoral pressure:** 2015 Germany illustrates the tension — short-term compassion, medium-term backlash.
- **Points-based vs needs-based:** points systems attract the high-skilled but leave gaps in care, agriculture and construction, often filled by irregular labour.

- **Externalisation efficiency vs rule-of-law costs:** the UK–Rwanda scheme was legally contested at every stage and arguably eroded the UK’s standing on international law.

Case-by-case evaluation of major policies

The UK post-Brexit points-based system (2021–): replaced EU free movement with a skills- and salary-threshold visa regime. The minimum salary was raised from £26,200 to £38,700 in April 2024, and sponsoring employers also pay an Immigration Skills Charge (from £1,000 a year per worker for large firms, increased in 2025). *Evaluation:* the system has *not* reduced net migration — which peaked at over 900,000 in 2023 on revised ONS estimates — because demand for health and care workers under a lower threshold, plus student and Ukraine/Hong Kong special routes, more than replaced lost EU flows. It has, however, shifted the composition (more non-EU Asian and African, less EU), with attendant integration implications. Net migration then fell sharply, to ~204,000 in the year ending June 2025 (ONS), after 2024 rules barred most care-worker and student dependants and raised salary thresholds; the May 2025 immigration white paper went further, ending overseas recruitment of care workers and proposing a longer route to settlement.

Australia’s points system: one of the oldest (introduced 1979, after Canada’s 1967 system) and most widely imitated. Applicants score points for age, English, education, work experience, occupational demand and state nomination. Australia is unusual in deliberately targeting net migration at ~1% of population annually — among the highest in the OECD — while maintaining high public support for managed migration. The combination of selectivity, public communication and geographic insulation allows political equilibrium.

The US southern border in 2024: Biden’s June 2024 executive order restricted asylum when daily crossings exceeded 2,500, effectively suspending asylum access at the border. Monthly crossings fell from ~250,000 in December 2023 to ~57,000 in June 2024 — but this also reflected intensified Mexican enforcement on its southern border, demonstrating how destination policy can displace rather than reduce flows. Trump’s return to office in January 2025 brought an effective closure of the border to asylum and a mass-deportation drive aimed at the estimated 11 million irregular residents; crossings fell to multi-decade lows, while the legal and logistical obstacles to mass removal remain vast.

14. Future Trends

Four structural forces will shape migration over 2025–2050:

1. **Demographic divergence:** the Global North will lose working-age population (Europe projected –50m by 2050); the Sahel, parts of South Asia and Latin America will gain large youth cohorts. Pressure for labour migration will intensify even as political resistance does.
2. **Climate displacement:** rising from a millions-per-year to a tens-of-millions-per-year phenomenon on current emissions trajectories, most of it internal but increasingly international.
3. **Technology:** remote work (accelerated by COVID-19) is enabling a new class of “digital nomads” (Portugal, Bali, Barbados visas); AI-driven automation may reduce demand for low-skilled migrant labour in some sectors.
4. **Geopolitical fragmentation:** Russia’s war on Ukraine, US–China rivalry, Sahel instability, and the weaponisation of migration (Belarus 2021; Morocco 2021) are making corridors more politicised. Expect more externalisation, more bilateralism, and fewer multilateral advances.

Exam tip — structuring a 20-mark evaluative essay: Eduqas 20-mark questions on migration typically ask “Discuss/Evaluate/Assess”. Structure: (1) a 2–3 sentence introduction with a quantified context (“281m migrants, 3.6% of world pop”) and a preview judgement; (2) three or four analytical paragraphs each built on a named case study (Syria, Mexico–USA, Gulf, Ukraine, Rohingya), deploying theory (Lee, Todaro, dual labour market); (3) an explicit comparative table or synthesis paragraph; (4) a conclusion that weighs costs/benefits and returns to the question. Always reach a judgement — fence-sitting caps marks at Level 3.

Exam tip — cite the 1951 Convention correctly: Many candidates refer loosely to “the UN refugee law”. The precise citation is the *1951 Convention Relating to the Status of Refugees*, modified by the *1967 Protocol*, whose Article 1A(2) defines a refugee and whose Article 33 establishes *non-refoulement*. Using the correct names signals command of the material.

Exam tip — numbers must have dates and sources: “There are 281 million migrants” is weaker than “The IOM’s *World Migration Report 2024* records ~281 million international migrants (3.6% of world population).” Examiners reward specificity. Equally, write “\$860bn of global remittances in 2023 (World Bank)” rather than “remittances are large”.

15. Summary of Case Studies

Case	Scale	Type	Key governance mechanism	Headline exam point
Syria	6.8m refugees + 6.7m IDPs	Forced / conflict	1951 Convention; EU–Turkey deal 2016	Largest refugee crisis since WW2; drove 2015 European political shift
Mexico–USA	11m stock; 2.5m crossings 2023	Mixed labour + irregular + asylum	US domestic law; bilateral enforcement	Structural wage gap; 1994 NAFTA and 2023–24 asylum surge
Gulf (Kafala)	30m+ migrant workers	Labour / circular	National Kafala law; ILO norms (weak)	Structural demand + labour abuse; Qatar 2022 World Cup spotlight
Ukraine	6.7m refugees + 3.7m IDPs	Forced / conflict	EU Temporary Protection Directive (2022)	First TPD activation; differential reception raises equity questions
Rohingya	~1m in Cox's Bazar	Forced / stateless	ICJ genocide case; UNHCR protection	Statelessness + protracted displacement; no durable solution

15a. A Shrinking World and Rural–Urban Migration in Developing Countries

A shrinking world. Cheaper air travel, mobile phones, the internet and social media have cut the cost and uncertainty of moving: migrants can compare destinations, keep in daily contact with family and send money instantly by mobile transfer, while media images (and smugglers' advertising) shape expectations. Powerful states use migration to their advantage — the Gulf states have built global hub cities such as Dubai and Doha on migrant labour, and the USA and UK attract skilled workers and students to sustain research and finance clusters. Colonial and Commonwealth links (e.g. Caribbean and South Asian migration to the UK after 1948) and EU freedom of movement (e.g. Polish migration to the UK after 2004) channel flows along established routes.

Push factors in rural areas. Mechanised agriculture reduces the need for farm labour; volatile *primary commodity prices* can ruin smallholders growing cash crops such as coffee, cocoa or cotton; poor access to markets and credit keeps incomes low; and *land grabs* — large-scale acquisition of farmland by foreign investors, agribusiness or states (e.g. leases in Ethiopia’s Gambella region from the late 2000s) — can displace smallholders and indigenous peoples.

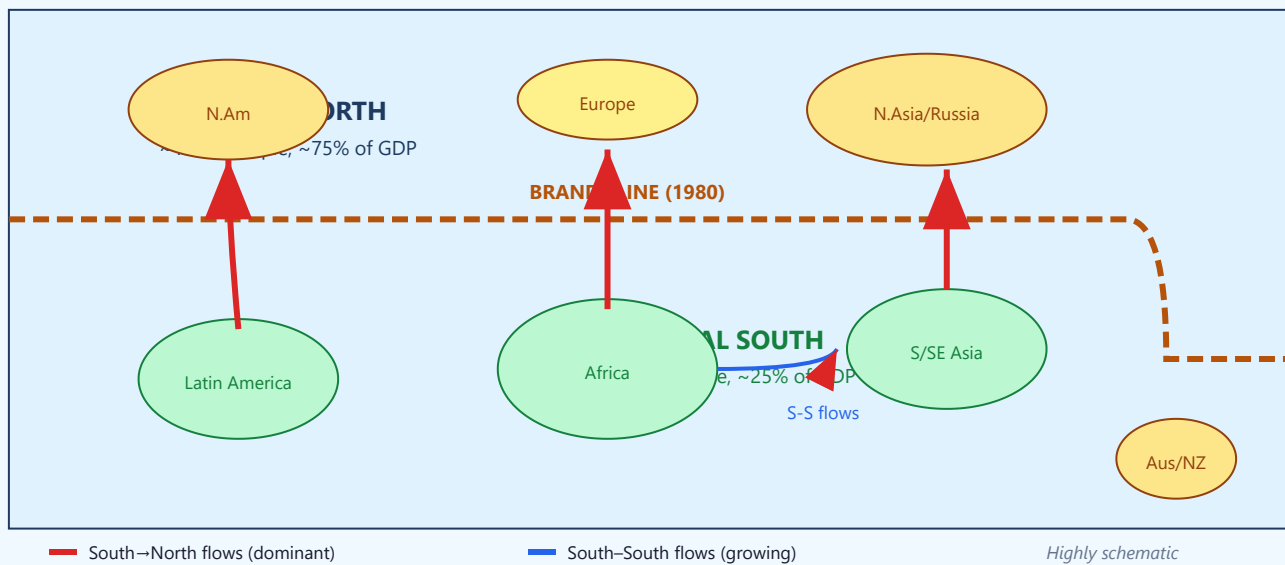
Pull factors in cities. Global supply chains create factory jobs in *export processing zones* (EPZs) and special economic zones such as Shenzhen (China’s first SEZ, 1980) and the garment EPZs around Dhaka. China’s rural–urban flow is the largest in history: around 300 million rural migrant workers (2024), many still without an urban *hukou* registration and so with limited access to city schools and health care.

Consequences and responses. Rural areas lose young adults (leaving ageing, often female-headed households) but gain remittances; cities gain labour but face informal settlements, congestion and pressure on services. Governments respond with *top-down planning* in megacities — new towns, mass housing, slum clearance or redevelopment (e.g. the Dharavi redevelopment in Mumbai; periodic demolitions of waterfront settlements in Lagos) — while *bottom-up* community development (self-help housing upgrades, savings groups linked to Slum Dwellers International, community-built sanitation in Orangi, Karachi) often delivers cheaper, locally supported improvements.

16. The Brandt Line and the Geography of Migration

The **Brandt Line**, drawn by the 1980 Brandt Commission (*North–South: A Programme for Survival*), loops around the world at roughly 30°N — dipping south to include Australia and New Zealand in the “North” — separating a rich industrialised North from a poorer, agrarian South. Although the simplistic North–South binary has been blurred by the rise of China, India, Brazil and the Gulf, it remains useful as a *first approximation* for understanding migration geography: the dominant direction of flow is from south of the line to north of it, or from poorer to richer regions within the South (intra-African flows to South Africa; intra-South-Asian flows to the Gulf; intra-Latin-American flows to Colombia, Chile, Argentina).

The Brandt Line and Dominant Migration Vectors



Two updates of the Brandt line are now essential. First, *South–South migration* is now ~40% of international migration stock (IOM), increasingly important within the Gulf (South Asia to GCC), within sub-Saharan Africa (Burkinabés to Côte d’Ivoire, Zimbabweans to South Africa), and within Latin America (Venezuelans to Colombia, Peru, Chile). Second, *new middle-income destinations* (Turkey, Malaysia, Thailand, South Africa, Mexico) are emerging as both transit and destination countries, complicating the neat North–South dichotomy.

South–South migration in more detail

South–South migration covers several sub-patterns worth distinguishing in exam answers:

- Intra-African:** the largest regional movements are within Africa rather than to Europe. Côte d’Ivoire hosts ~2.5 million West African migrants; South Africa hosts ~2.9 million migrants from Zimbabwe, Mozambique, Lesotho and elsewhere; Uganda hosts ~1.6 million refugees (from South Sudan, DRC, Burundi), one of the most generous refugee-hosting regimes in the world, offering land plots and freedom of movement.
- Intra-Latin American:** the Venezuelan exodus (7.7 million people, ~24% of the pre-crisis population) is now the largest displacement in the Western Hemisphere, with Colombia (~2.9m), Peru (~1.5m), Brazil (~530k), Chile (~500k) and Ecuador (~475k) absorbing most of it. Colombia’s 2021 *Estatuto Temporal de Protección* granted ten-year regularisation to 2.5 million Venezuelans — among the most ambitious regularisation programmes in recent history.

- **Intra-Asian:** beyond the Gulf, Malaysia hosts ~3 million migrant workers (Indonesian, Bangladeshi, Nepali, Rohingya); Thailand hosts ~4 million migrants, mostly from Myanmar; Singapore's population is ~30% non-resident.

17. Migration and Development — the “Migration–Development Nexus”

The relationship between migration and development is contested. Three positions dominate:

1. **Migration optimist (de Haas, World Bank):** migration is a poverty-reduction strategy. Remittances outweigh brain drain; skills flow back through return and circulation; diaspora investment stimulates growth. The rise of the Philippines, India and increasingly Bangladesh partly reflects the gains of labour exports.
2. **Migration pessimist (Frank, Amin):** migration deepens dependency. The Global South subsidises the North by training workers it cannot retain; remittances create “remittance Dutch disease” (currency appreciation, lost competitiveness in tradable sectors); dependence entrenches uneven development.
3. **Structural / pluralist (Castles, de Haas):** migration is neither inherently positive nor negative — its effects depend on the wider institutional and economic context. Without productive investment opportunities, remittances fuel consumption; with them, they fund SMEs and human capital.

The empirical pattern: over the *migration transition*, countries typically move from net emigration (poor, young, high push) through a peak emigration phase during early development (improved resources to leave) to net immigration (richer, labour-demanding). Spain, Italy and Ireland made this transition during the late 20th century; Turkey, Mexico and Morocco are at various points along it; Korea and Taiwan reached the net-immigration phase decades ago.

Migration transition: The characteristic inverted-U relationship between development and emigration, in which emigration *rises* with early development before falling as a country becomes rich enough to retain and attract workers. First proposed by Zelinsky (1971) and elaborated by Hein de Haas.

18. Irregular Migration and Border Enforcement

Irregular migration — crossings or stays outside the legal framework — is a small fraction of total migration (IOM estimates 15–20% of the global migrant stock at some point held irregular status) but dominates political debate. Two mechanisms generate it:

- **Visa overstaying:** more than half of US irregular migration comes from people who entered legally and overstayed visas, not from border crossings. In the UK, Home Office estimates put overstayers at a majority of irregular residents.
- **Unauthorised border crossing:** the more visible form. Routes include the US–Mexico border, the Central Mediterranean (Libya / Tunisia → Italy), Western Mediterranean (Morocco → Spain), Eastern Mediterranean (Turkey → Greece), the English Channel small boats (France → UK), the Darien Gap (Colombia → Panama en route to the USA, ~520,000 crossings in 2023).

Smuggling is the facilitation of irregular crossing for profit; **trafficking** is coerced movement for exploitation. The two are often conflated but are legally distinct (UN Palermo Protocols, 2000). Smuggling networks on the Libya–Italy route charge roughly €1,500–5,000 per person; a Channel crossing costs migrants £3,000–8,000. Deaths are substantial: IOM’s Missing Migrants Project recorded 8,565 migrant deaths worldwide in 2023, then a new record of nearly 9,000 in 2024, with the Mediterranean the deadliest single frontier.

Border enforcement strategies

- **Physical barriers:** US–Mexico wall (~1,100 km of 3,145 km border), Hungary’s fence on the Serbian and Croatian borders (2015), Greece’s Evros fence with Turkey, Israel’s Sinai fence with Egypt (effectively halted Eritrean flows). Evidence suggests walls *redirect* rather than stop flows, raising costs and deaths.
- **Maritime interception:** Operation Sophia (EU, 2015–20); Italian–Libyan cooperation where the EU funds a Libyan Coast Guard to intercept and return migrants — controversially, since Libyan detention conditions are extensively documented as abusive.
- **Biometric and data systems:** EU’s EURODAC fingerprint database; the EU Entry–Exit System (launched October 2025); API (Advance Passenger Information) data sharing.
- **Safe third-country / externalisation:** as discussed above.
- **In-country enforcement:** workplace raids, right-to-work checks (UK post-2014 Immigration Act), hostile-environment policies.

Exam tip — recognise the law-enforcement paradox: Stricter enforcement often *strengthens* smuggling networks, raises migrant deaths, and deters return migration (migrants stay put because

re-entry is too costly). This counter-intuitive dynamic — documented by Douglas Massey for US–Mexico and by many European studies — is reliable Level-4 evaluative material.

19. Integration, Multiculturalism and the Politics of Belonging

Integration outcomes — how migrants fare economically, socially and politically in their destination — are strongly conditioned by policy regime.

- **Assimilationism (France):** the *Républicain* model of “colour-blind” citizenship, banning ethnic statistics and headscarves in schools (2004 law) and full-face veils in public spaces (2010 ban). Proponents argue it creates equal citizenship; critics that it masks discrimination and blocks affirmative intervention.
- **Multiculturalism (Canada, UK historically):** recognises and supports cultural pluralism; Canada’s 1988 Multiculturalism Act is the flagship. UK multiculturalism has been partially abandoned since the 7/7 bombings (2005) and Cameron’s 2011 Munich speech, replaced by a more integrationist “British values” frame.
- **Differential exclusion (Germany until 2000s, Gulf states):** migrants are welcomed as workers but not as citizens. Germany reformed its blood-based citizenship law in 2000 and again in 2024 (allowing dual citizenship, shortening residence requirement from 8 to 5 years). Gulf states have not reformed — citizenship is effectively impossible for most migrants.

Second-generation outcomes — children of migrants born or raised in the destination — are often the real test. The OECD’s *International Indicators of Immigrant Integration* show Turkish-origin youth in Germany, North-African-origin youth in France and Pakistani-origin youth in the UK with persistent gaps in education, employment and housing relative to native peers, though the gaps are closing. Contrast the USA, where second-generation immigrants typically *outperform* the native-born on education and earnings — an American integration success rooted in high-skill immigration selection and a historically liberal citizenship regime.

20. Gender and Migration

Migration has *feminised*. Women are now 48.0% of the global international migrant stock (IOM 2024), up from 46.6% in 1990, and in some corridors — Philippines to Hong Kong, Ethiopia to the Gulf, Indonesia to Malaysia, Ukraine to the EU under TPD — the majority. Female migration is concentrated in domestic work, care, nursing, hospitality and agriculture. It creates specific vulnerabilities (isolation in private homes,

dependence on employers under Kafala, sexual violence en route) but also specific empowerment effects: remittances managed by female migrants tend to be spent more on children's education and health, and female labour migration can shift gender norms in both origin and destination. The *global care chain* — Filipina women caring for children in Hong Kong while their own children are raised by grandmothers at home — illustrates how migration redistributes reproductive labour globally.

21. Key Vocabulary Recap

- **Non-refoulement** — the principle under Article 33 of the 1951 Convention that a refugee cannot be returned to a country where they face persecution.
- **Temporary Protection Directive** — 2001 EU instrument activated in March 2022 for Ukrainians.
- **Cumulative causation** — the self-reinforcing spread of migration through networks and remittances.
- **Externalisation** — pushing the migration border outward through third-country agreements.
- **Social remittances** — the transfer of ideas, values and practices by migrants, in addition to money.
- **Brain circulation** — return migration and skill transfer offsetting pure brain drain.
- **Kafala** — the Gulf "sponsorship" system tying migrant workers' residence to a named employer, enabling widespread abuse; partly reformed in Qatar (2018–20) and the UAE.
- **Migration transition** — the inverted-U relationship between development and emigration.
- **Global care chain** — the international transfer of reproductive labour via female migration.
- **Mixed migration** — flows combining refugees, economic migrants and other categories sharing a route (e.g. the Central Mediterranean).

Kafala system: The legal framework in most Gulf states under which a migrant worker's residence visa is tied to a specific employer (the *kafeel*, or sponsor). Workers typically cannot change jobs, leave the country, or in some cases live outside employer-provided housing without sponsor permission. The system underpins an estimated 30 million-strong migrant workforce but has enabled systemic labour abuses; partial reforms (Bahrain 2017, Qatar 2018–20, UAE ongoing) have eased but not abolished sponsor control.

Migration in 2024 is neither historically unprecedented in scale (share of world population) nor primarily "crisis" migration (the majority is voluntary and legal). But it is politically hotter than at any point since the 1930s, legally fragmented, and on the cusp of transformation by climate change. A confident Eduqas

answer reaches for a case study, a number, a theorist and a governance instrument — and reaches a judgement.

22. Synthesis — Five Threads to Weave Through Any Answer

The specification asks candidates to analyse processes, patterns, and governance of global migration. Five analytical threads recur across the topic and should be present in every extended answer:

1. **Scale and structure:** the 281m / 117m / \$860bn framing establishes that migration is large but uneven. The pattern is dominated by a handful of corridors (Mexico–USA, Syria–Turkey, South Asia–Gulf) rather than a generalised “flood”.
2. **Agency and structure:** migrants are not passive victims of push factors; they are calculating agents operating under structural constraints (wage gaps, border regimes, networks). Lee and Todaro emphasise agency; dual-labour-market theory emphasises structure. Strong answers reconcile both.
3. **Benefits and costs — differentially distributed:** migration generates aggregate gains (remittances, labour, demography) but localised losses (wage competition in low-skill sectors, housing pressure, brain-drain in origin). The politics turn on who perceives themselves as winners or losers.
4. **Governance gap:** a mismatch between the global and transnational nature of migration and the national-state character of law-making produces fragmented, ad-hoc, often inhumane policy. The 1951 Convention, the GCM and the Temporary Protection Directive illustrate both ambition and limits.
5. **Emerging drivers:** climate, conflict and demographic divergence are accelerating; technology, externalisation and geopolitical rivalry are reshaping responses. The 2020s are likely to see further large flows and further political contestation.

Practice question prompts

Typical Eduqas 20-mark question stems for Topic 2.3, with a suggested angle of attack for each:

- *“Evaluate the economic and social impacts of migration on destination countries.”* → use Germany (Syria + Ukraine) and the UK (NHS, Brexit) as paired case studies; deploy dual-labour-market theory; weigh aggregate gains against distributional costs.
- *“Assess the extent to which international governance is able to manage global migration.”* → test 1951 Convention, UNHCR, GCM, Dublin, TPD against the Syrian and Mediterranean crises; conclude with a structural critique (nation-state vs global flow).

- “Discuss the view that climate change will become the dominant driver of global migration.” → use Tuvalu, Bangladesh, Sahel; acknowledge the definitional and legal gap; conclude with a “yes, on current trajectory, but...” judgement.
- “To what extent do the impacts of emigration on origin countries represent a net benefit?” → Philippines, Nepal, Tajikistan, Mexico as case studies; remittances vs brain drain; use the migration-transition concept.
- “Examine the causes and consequences of one major migration corridor.” → Mexico–USA is the strongest choice given data availability; structure as (1) structural causes, (2) flow characteristics, (3) impacts on both sides, (4) governance response.

Exam tip — use a “double case study” structure in 20-mark answers: Rather than one case study per paragraph, build your essay around two contrasting cases (e.g. Syria vs Ukraine to compare refugee governance; Mexico–USA vs Gulf to compare labour migration). The comparison forces analysis rather than description and demonstrates the synoptic thinking examiners reward at Level 4.

23. Final Revision Checklist

Before the exam, verify you can do each of the following in under a minute without notes:

- Define *migrant*, *refugee*, *asylum seeker*, *IDP*, *stateless person*, *economic migrant* and explain the legal distinction between refugee and asylum seeker.
- Quote three headline statistics: 281m international migrants (3.6%); 117m forcibly displaced; \$860bn remittances 2023.
- Sketch Lee’s push–pull model from memory, placing intervening obstacles between origin and destination and noting personal-factor filtering.
- Name three migration theories and distinguish individual (Lee, Todaro), structural (dual labour market) and network approaches.
- List at least five major corridors with a number attached to each.
- Discuss two origin-country case studies for remittance dependency (Tajikistan ~48%, Tonga ~41%, Nepal ~25%+).
- Cite the 1951 Convention and 1967 Protocol correctly, including Article 33 non-refoulement.

- Summarise each of the five required case studies — Syria, Mexico–USA, Gulf/Kafala, Ukraine, Rohingya — in three sentences, with dates and numbers.
- Explain why climate-displaced persons are not refugees under current international law and cite Tuvalu’s Falepili Union or the Teitiota case as evidence of emerging soft-law responses.
- Offer a balanced judgement on whether global migration governance is “fit for purpose” — the likely 20-mark stem.

If you can tick every item, you are prepared for an A* answer on Topic 2.3.